

Binary Search Tree Basics

Design and Analysis of Algorithms

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Set / Map Data Structures

- Set / Dictionary: maintain dynamic collection of elements
 - Insert (k) : insert key k
 - Remove (k) : remove key k
 - Find (k) : is key k present?
- Map: maintain collection of (key, value) pairs
 - Insert (k, v) : insert key k with associated value v
 - Remove (k) : remove record with key k
 - Find (k) : is key k present
 - $A[k]$ (assuming map called “A”) : value associated with k

Set / Map Data Structures

Insert	Remove	Find
$O(n)$	$O(n)$	$O(\log n)$
$O(1)$	$O(1)$, post-find	$O(n)$
$O(1)$, post-find	$O(1)$, post-find	$O(n)$
$O(1)$	$O(1)$, post-find	$O(n)$
" $O(1)$ "	" $O(1)$ "	" $O(1)$ "
$O(\log n)$	$O(\log n)$	$O(\log n)$

Sorted array



Unsorted array



Sorted (doubly) linked list



Unsorted (doubly) linked list



Hash table (we'll study these soon...)

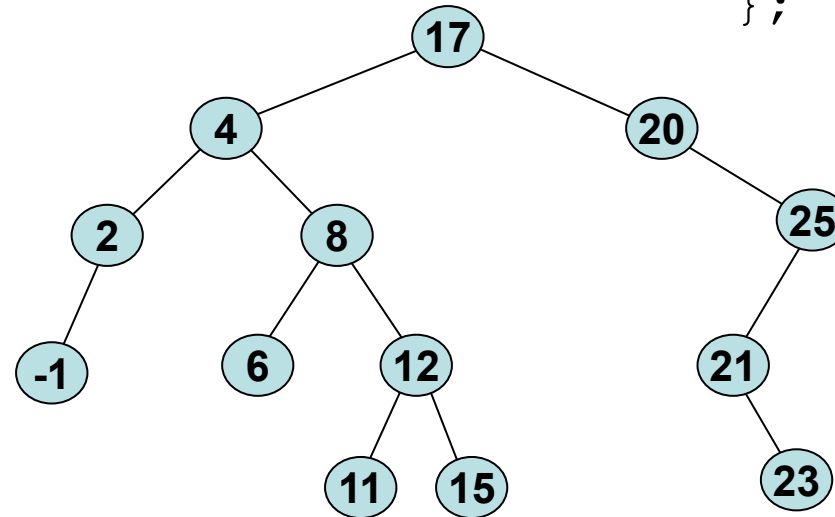
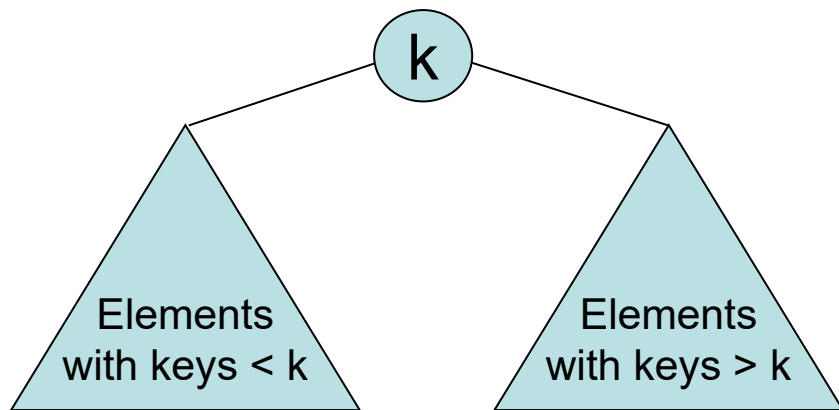
(Balanced) binary search trees, skip lists, and B-trees

Although slightly slower than hash tables, BSTs and their relatives are comparison-based, and support many operations beyond insert, remove, and find that hash tables can't handle.

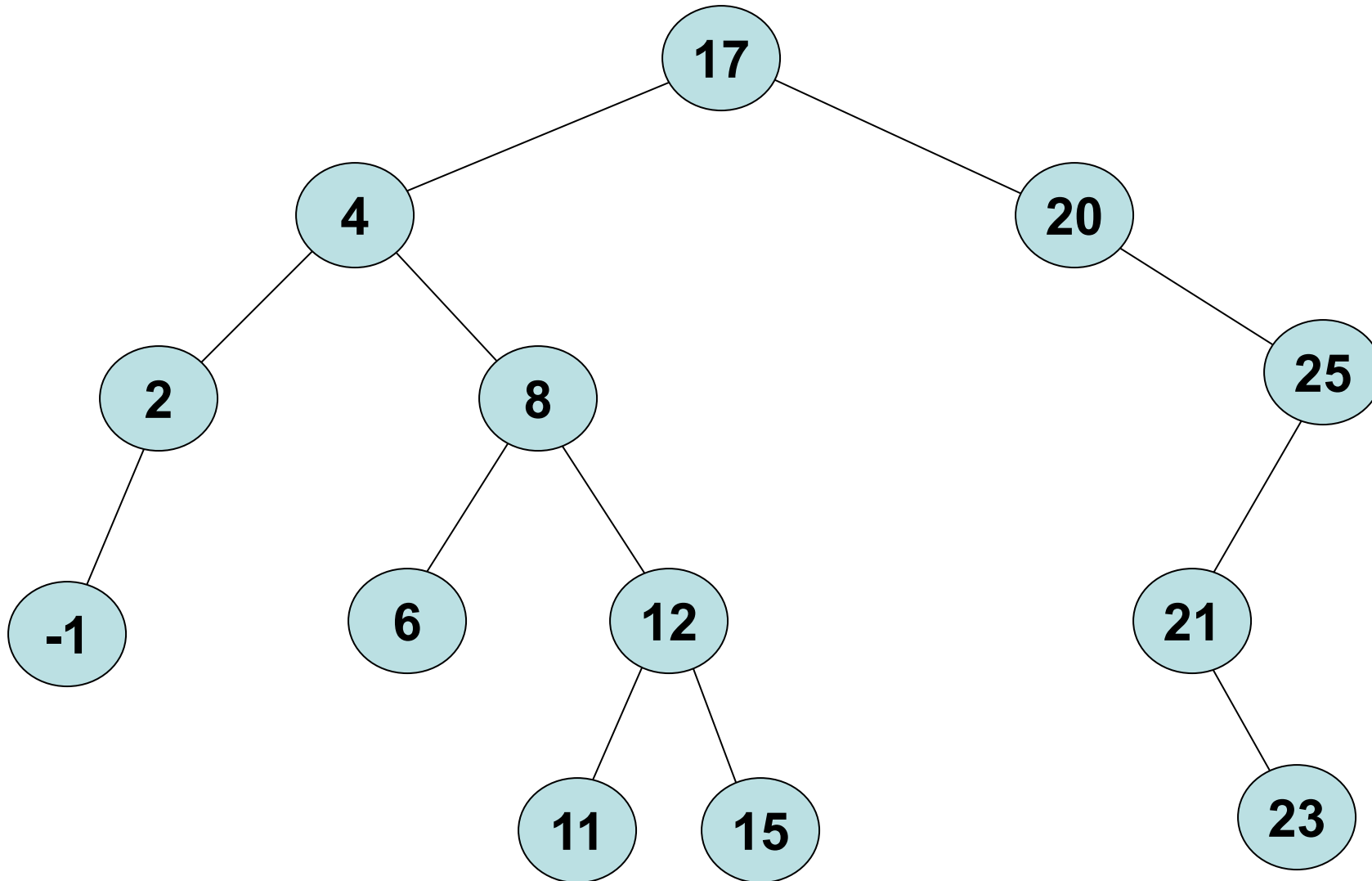
Binary Search Trees

- A binary tree satisfying the **binary search tree property**.
- Each node typically points to its left child, right child and (sometimes) parent.
- **Balanced:** height = $O(\log n)$

```
struct Node {  
    int key;  
    Node *left;  
    Node *right;  
    // Maybe:  
    Node *parent;  
};
```



The BST Is a “Horizontally-Ordered” Structure...



In contrast to heaps, which are “vertically” ordered.

Fundamental Operations

Most BST operations can be implemented in a simple recursive fashion in $O(\text{height})$ time ($O(\log n)$ if balanced).

```
Node *find(Node *T, int k) {  
    if (T == NULL) return NULL;  
    if (k == T->key) return T;  
    if (k < T->key) return find(T->left, k);  
    else return find(T->right, k);  
}
```

Binary Search!!!



```
struct Node {  
    int key;  
    Node *left;  
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};
```

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    else return find(T->right, k);  
}
```

```
Node *insert(Node *T, int k) {  
    if (T == NULL) return new Node(k);  
    if (k < T->key) T->left = insert(T->left, k);  
    else T->right = insert(T->right, k);  
    return T;  
}
```

```
struct Node {  
    int key;  
    Node *left;  
    Node *right;  
};
```

Balance Matters!

- What is the total running time for inserting the elements 1, 2, 3, ..., N?
- What if we insert N random elements?
- Interesting fact: If we insert N random elements (or equivalently, insert any N elements but in random order), we get a tree that is balanced (i.e., having height $O(\log N)$) with high probability.
 - Preview: we'll exploit this interesting fact to keep our trees balanced – by making sure they stay in a state that is “as if just built randomly from scratch”.

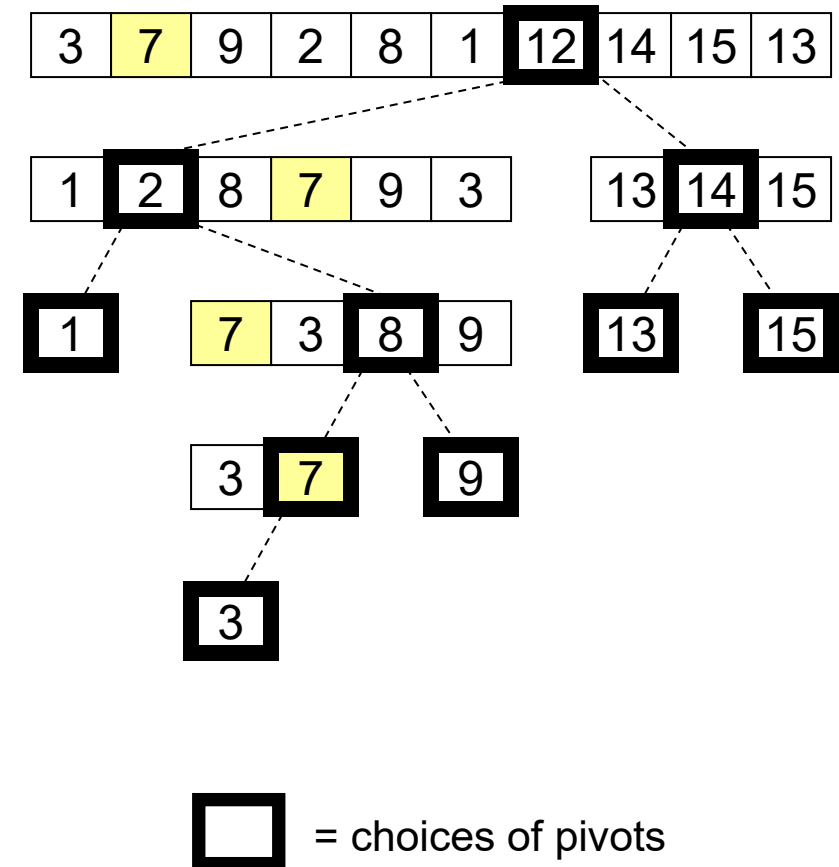
Quicksort and BST Construction: Essentially the Same!

- BST == quicksort recursion tree
- Quicksort and BST construction make same comparisons, just in a different order.
- Randomized quicksort analogous to building a BST by inserting elements in random order.

Randomly-built BST balanced whp.



On every element, quicksort spends $O(\log n)$ comparisons whp.



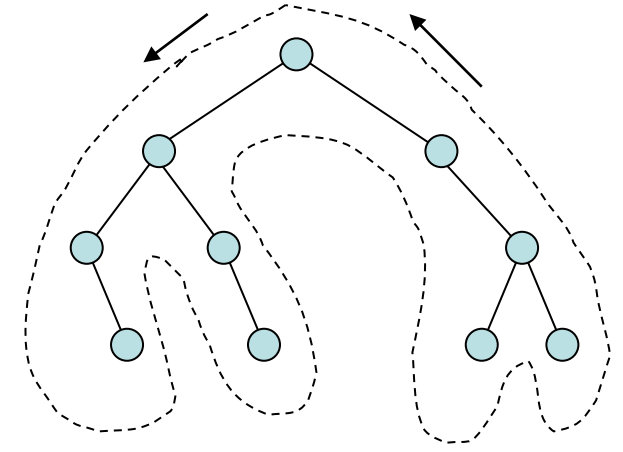
Tree Traversals

- We often enumerate the contents of an n-element BST in $O(n)$ time using an **inorder** tree traversal:

Inorder (T) :

```
if T == NULL, then return  
Inorder(T->left)  
print T->key  
Inorder(T->right)
```

- Other types of common traversals (for non-binary also):
 - Preorder: root, left subtree, right subtree.
 - Postorder: left subtree, right subtree, root.
 - Eulerian: root, left subtree, root, right subtree, root.
(sequence of nodes encountered when we “walk around” a BST)

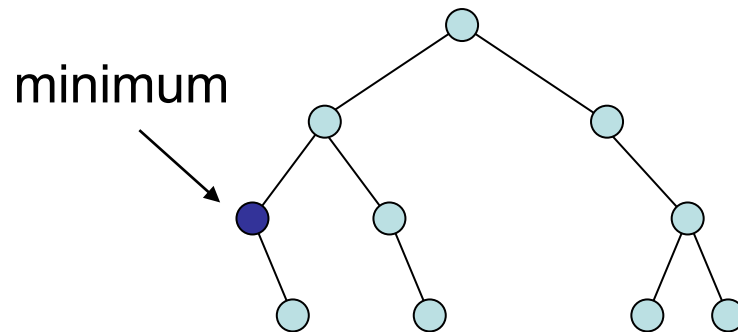


Sorting with a BST

- An in-order traversal prints the n elements in a BST **in sorted order** in only $O(n)$ time.
 - Therefore, we can use BSTs to sort:
 - *insert* n elements $O(n \log n)$. (*)
 - then do an inorder traversal. $O(n)$.
- (*) if tree is kept balanced
- Recall: BSTs are comparison-based

Minimum and Maximum

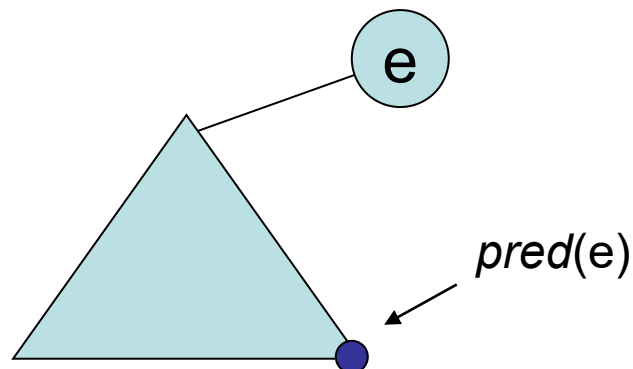
- It's easy to locate the minimum and maximum elements in a BST in $O(h)$ time.
- For the minimum, start at the root and walk left as long as possible:



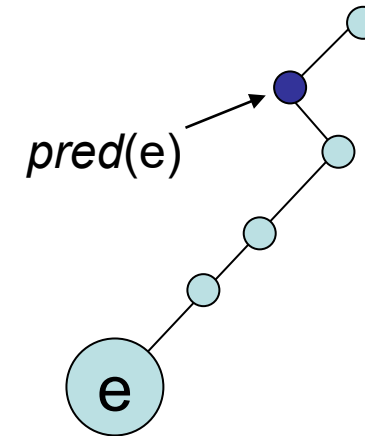
- Vice-versa for the maximum...

Predecessor and Successor

- The $pred(e)$ operation takes a pointer to e and locates the element immediately preceding e in an inorder traversal.



If e has a left child, then $pred(e)$ is the maximum element in e 's left subtree.

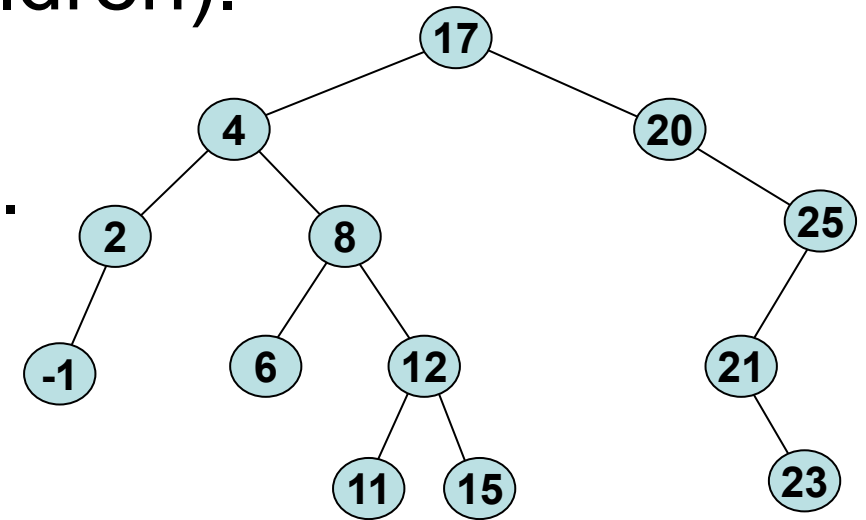


If e has no left child, then $pred(e)$ is the first "left parent" we encounter when walking from e up to the root.

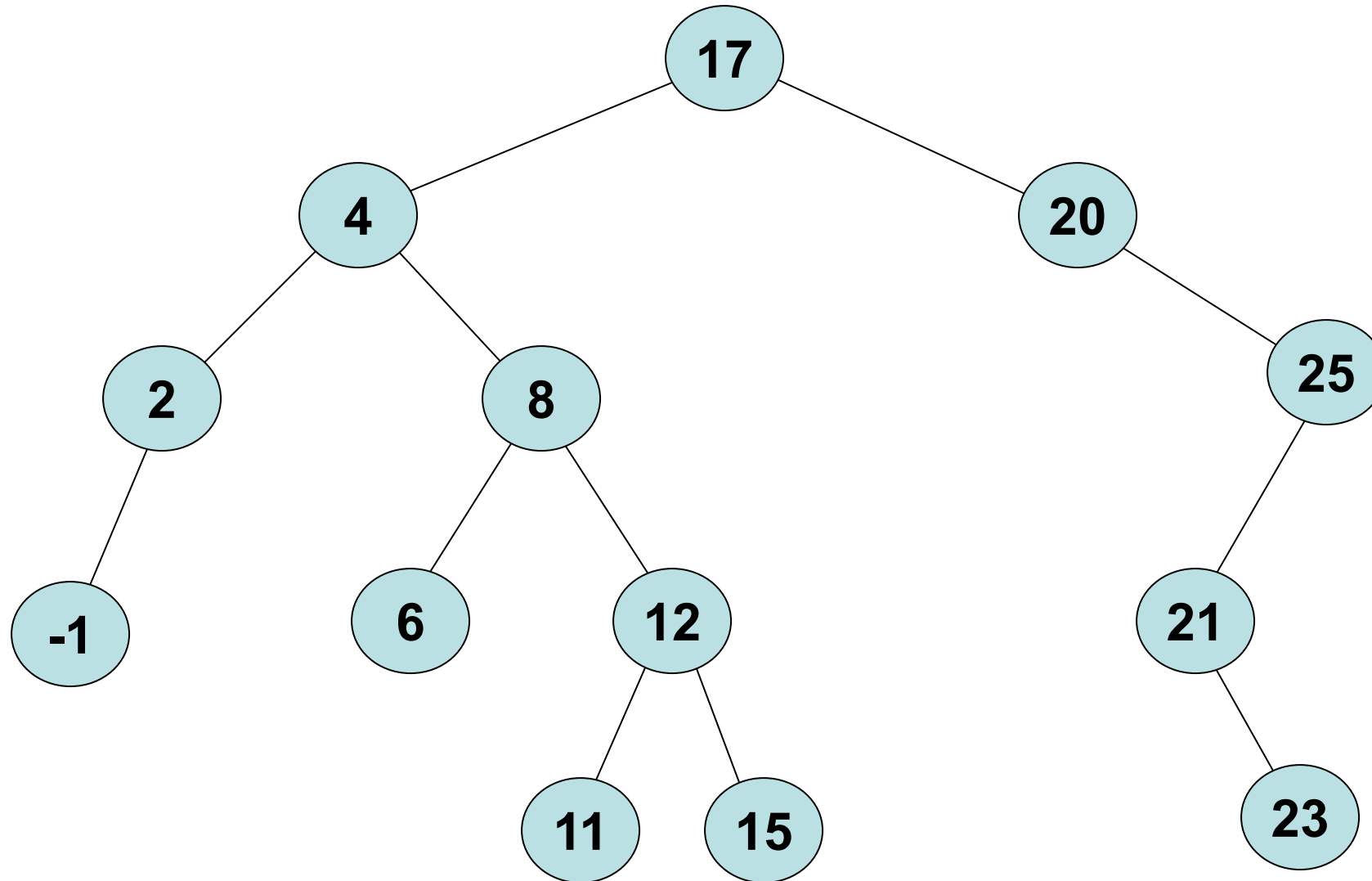
- The successor operation, $succ(e)$, is completely symmetric to this. Both take $O(\text{height})$ time.

Deletion – a Standard but “Ugly” Approach...

- It's easy to *delete* a leaf node (no children).
- It's easy to *delete* a node with only one child – just replace with the child.
- To *delete* an element e with two children, first swap e with either $pred(e)$ or $succ(e)$.
 - If e has two children, $pred(e)$ and $succ(e)$ each will have at most one child.
 - Replacing e with $pred(e)$ or $succ(e)$ is o.k. with BST property.



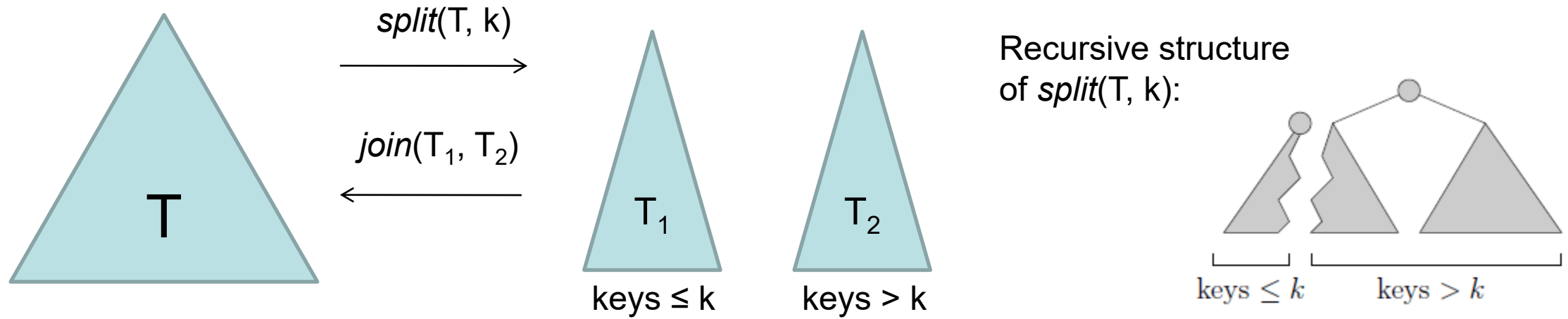
What Happens if you Search for 14?



Inexact Searches and Range Queries

- In addition to $pred(e)$ and $succ(e)$ that take pointers to elements, we could implement:
 - $pred(k)$: find the element with largest key $\leq k$.
 - $succ(k)$: find the element with smallest key $\geq k$.
- This allows us to perform inexact searches: if an element with key k isn't present, we can explore nearby elements in the BST.
- Can also answer **range queries**: output all elements whose keys are in the range $[a, b]$.

Split and Join



Simpler way to delete e : replace with join of children:

